

# Math Notes

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# Contents

|          |                                               |          |
|----------|-----------------------------------------------|----------|
| <b>1</b> | <b>Statistics</b>                             | <b>3</b> |
| 1.1      | Probability Space . . . . .                   | 3        |
| 1.2      | Discrete Probability Distribution . . . . .   | 3        |
| 1.3      | Continuous Probability Distribution . . . . . | 3        |
| 1.3.1    | Uniform Distribution . . . . .                | 4        |
| 1.3.2    | Normal Distribution . . . . .                 | 4        |
| 1.4      | Law of large numbers . . . . .                | 4        |
| <b>2</b> | <b>Mathematical Analysis</b>                  | <b>5</b> |
| 2.1      | Metric Space . . . . .                        | 5        |
| 2.1.1    | Contraction Mapping . . . . .                 | 5        |
| 2.1.2    | Banach fixed-point theorem . . . . .          | 5        |

# 1 Statistics

## 1.1 Probability Space

In probability theory, a probability space or a probability triple  $(\Omega, \mathcal{F}, P)$  is a mathematical construct that provides a formal model of a random process or "experiment".

$\Omega$ : A sample space, which is the set of all possible outcomes of a random process under consideration.

$\mathcal{F}$ : An event space, which is a set of events, where an event is a subset of outcomes in the sample space. The  $\sigma$ -algebra  $\mathcal{F}$  is a collection of all the events we would like to consider.

$P$ : A probability function, which assigns, to each event in the event space, a probability, which is a number between 0 and 1 (inclusive).

In the example of the throw of a standard die:

The sample space  $\Omega$  is typically the set  $\{1, 2, 3, 4, 5, 6\}$ .

The event space  $\mathcal{F}$  could be the set of all subsets of the sample space, which would then contain simple events such as  $\{5\}$  ("the die lands on 5"), as well as complex events such as  $\{2, 4, 6\}$  ("the die lands on an even number"). So  $\mathcal{F} = \{\{5\}, \{2, 4, 6\}, \dots\}$

The probability function  $P$  would then map each event to the number of outcomes in that event divided by 6. So for example:  $P(\{5\}) = \frac{1}{6}$ ,  $P(\{2, 4, 6\}) = \frac{3}{6}$ , ...

## 1.2 Discrete Probability Distribution

Let  $X$  be a random variable with a finite number of finite outcomes  $x_1, x_2, \dots, x_n$  occurring with probabilities  $p_1, p_2, \dots, p_n$  respectively. The expectation of  $X$  is defined as

$$\mu = E[X] = \sum_{i=1}^n x_i p_i = x_1 p_1 + x_2 p_2 + \dots + x_n p_n$$

The variance of  $X$  is

$$\sigma^2 = Var(X) = \sum_{i=1}^n p_i \cdot (x_i - \mu)^2$$

For a collection of  $n$  equally likely values:

$$\mu = \frac{1}{n} \sum_{i=1}^n x_i$$

$$\sigma^2 = \frac{1}{n} \sum_{i=1}^n (x_i - \mu)^2$$

### Expectation:

If  $X$  is independent of  $\mathcal{H}$ , then  $E(X | \mathcal{H}) = E(X)$ .

Tower property: for sub- $\sigma$ -algebras  $\mathcal{H}_1 \subseteq \mathcal{H}_2 \subseteq \mathcal{F}$ , then  $E(E(X | \mathcal{H}_2) | \mathcal{H}_1) = E(X | \mathcal{H}_1)$ .

Law of total expectation:  $E(E(X | \mathcal{H})) = E(X)$ . A special case of tower property when  $\mathcal{H}_1 = \{\emptyset, \Omega\}$ .

Linearity:  $E(X_1 + X_2 | \mathcal{H}) = E(X_1 | \mathcal{H}) + E(X_2 | \mathcal{H})$  and,  $E(aX | \mathcal{H}) = aE(X | \mathcal{H})$  when  $a \in \mathbb{R}$ .

## 1.3 Continuous Probability Distribution

If the random variable  $X$  has a probability density function  $f(x)$ , and  $F(x)$  is the corresponding cumulative distribution function, then

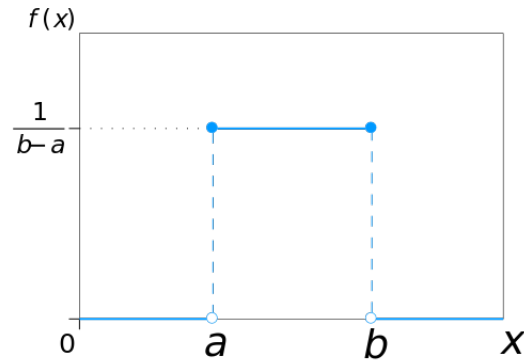
$$P(a \leq X \leq b) = \int_a^b f(x) dx$$

$$F(x) = P(X \leq x) = \int_{-\infty}^x f(t)dt$$

$$\mu = \int_{\mathbb{R}} xf(x)dx = \int_{\mathbb{R}} x dF(x)$$

$$\sigma^2 = \int_{\mathbb{R}} (x - \mu)^2 f(x)dx$$

### 1.3.1 Uniform Distribution

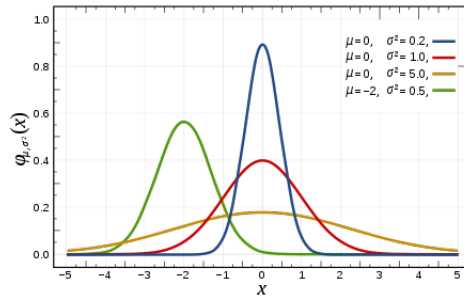


$$f(x) = \begin{cases} \frac{1}{b-a} & \text{for } a \leq x \leq b, \\ 0 & \text{for } x < a \text{ or } x > b \end{cases}$$

$$\mu = \frac{1}{2}(a + b)$$

$$\sigma^2 = \frac{1}{12}(b - a)^2$$

### 1.3.2 Normal Distribution



$$f(x) = \frac{1}{\sigma\sqrt{2\pi}} e^{-\frac{1}{2}\left(\frac{x-\mu}{\sigma}\right)^2}$$

## 1.4 Law of large numbers

In probability theory, the law of large numbers is a mathematical law that states that the average of the results obtained from a large number of independent random samples converges to the true value, if it exists. More formally, the law of large numbers states that given a sample of independent and identically distributed values, the sample mean converges to the true mean.

## 2 Mathematical Analysis

### 2.1 Metric Space

A metric space is an ordered pair  $(M, d)$  where  $M$  is a set and  $d$  is a distance metric (function) on  $M$ ,

$$d : M \times M \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$$

satisfying the following axioms for all points  $x, y, z \in M$ :

- The distance from a point to itself is zero:  $d(x, x) = 0$
- (Positivity) The distance between two distinct points is always positive: If  $x \neq y$ , then  $d(x, y) > 0$
- (Symmetry) The distance from  $x$  to  $y$  is always the same as the distance from  $y$  to  $x$ :  $d(x, y) = d(y, x)$
- The triangle inequality holds:  $d(x, z) \leq d(x, y) + d(y, z)$

#### Cauchy Sequence

Given a metric space  $(M, d)$ , a sequence of elements of  $X$ ,  $x_1, x_2, x_3, \dots$  is Cauchy, if for every positive real number  $\epsilon > 0$  there is a positive integer  $N$  such that for all positive integers  $m, n > N$ , the distance  $d(x_m, x_n) < \epsilon$ .

#### Complete Metric Space

In mathematical analysis, a metric space  $M$  is called complete (or a Cauchy space) if every Cauchy sequence of points in  $M$  has a limit that is also in  $M$ .

##### 2.1.1 Contraction Mapping

In mathematics, a contraction mapping, or contraction or contractor, on a metric space  $(M, d)$  is a function  $f$  from  $M$  to itself, aka contraction mapping  $f : M \rightarrow M$ , with the property that there is some real number  $0 \leq k < 1$  such that for all  $x$  and  $y$  in  $M$ ,

$$d(f(x), f(y)) \leq kd(x, y)$$

##### 2.1.2 Banach fixed-point theorem

Let  $(X, d)$  be a non-empty complete metric space with a contraction mapping  $T : X \rightarrow X$ . Then  $T$  admits a unique fixed-point  $x^*$  in  $X$ ,  $T(x^*) = x^*$ . Furthermore,  $x^*$  can be found as follows: start with an arbitrary element  $x_0 \in X$  and define a sequence  $(x_n)_{n \in \mathbb{N}}$  by  $x_n = T(x_{n-1})$  for  $n \geq 1$ . Then  $\lim_{n \rightarrow \infty} x_n = x^*$ . ([Wikipedia proof](#))